

Creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease

Case Study for the CFDE BiomarkerKB Project
Vincent Metzger, PhD

Introduction

Creatinine is a well-established biomarker for kidney function. It is a waste product produced at a relatively constant rate from the breakdown of creatine phosphate in muscle tissue and is cleared almost exclusively by the kidneys [1]. In clinical practice, serum creatinine serves as the primary indicator for staging kidney disease, as even subtle elevations can signal a significant reduction in the glomerular filtration rate [2]. Because the kidneys typically maintain blood creatinine within a narrow range, its accumulation acts as an early warning system for the onset of renal impairment or acute injury. Measuring creatinine in a patient over time allows the tracking of kidney function and the monitoring of disease progression [2,3]

History of creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease

The history of creatinine as a clinical biomarker is rooted in the early 19th century discovery of muscle metabolism. Creatinine was first identified in 1832 by Michel Eugène Chevreul, but it was another researcher, Justus von Liebig who, in 1847, confirmed its presence in urine as a breakdown product of muscle creatine. An important advance occurred in 1886 when Max Jaffé described the reaction between creatinine and picric acid in an alkaline environment, a principle that continues to be the most widely-used laboratory method for its measurement today[4]. By the mid-1920s, the application of these chemical principles moved into the realm of physiology when Poul Brandt Rehberg proposed that creatinine could be used to calculate the glomerular filtration rate (GFR), effectively establishing the modern concept of renal "clearance" [5].

Despite its early adoption, the use of creatinine was refined throughout the middle to late 20th century to address its physiological limitations. Researchers recognized that creatinine levels were influenced by several factors such as muscle mass, age, and sex, which necessitated the development of standardized equations to better estimate kidney function. The Cockcroft-Gault equation, introduced in 1976, was the first widely adopted formula to adjust creatinine values for patient demographics[6]. This was later superseded by the Modification of Diet in Renal Disease (MDRD) study and the CKD-EPI equations, which improved diagnostic accuracy across diverse populations[2]. Today, while newer markers like Cystatin-C are gaining ground, creatinine remains the most globally utilized biomarker due to its cost-effectiveness and the extensive historical data validating its utility in tracking chronic kidney disease progression.

Evidence Supporting the Use of creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease

The evidence for using creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease is based on its predictability, standardization, and clinical correlation with filtration rates. Creatinine is a byproduct of muscle metabolism produced at a constant rate[1]. Because it is a small molecule that is freely filtered by the kidneys and is not reabsorbed, its concentration in the blood serves as a proxy for the kidneys' filtering efficiency. If the creatinine blood level rises, there is a high-confidence indication that kidney clearance has decreased.

Extensive clinical research (such as the MDRD and CKD-EPI studies) has validated creatinine against other measurements, such as Inulin or Iohexol clearance[2,7]. Data shows a consistent inverse relationship: as kidney function drops by half, serum creatinine roughly doubles. Various large-scale investigations have shown that creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease is accurate enough for the vast majority of treatment decisions.

Biomarker Precision

The precision of creatinine as a biomarker for kidney disease is characterized by its high analytical reliability and biological variability which necessitates the use of standardized mathematical models to ensure clinical accuracy. While laboratory methods for measuring serum creatinine have been globally harmonized through the use of isotope dilution mass spectrometry (IDMS) traceable assays to minimize bias between laboratories, the biomarker's precision is inherently limited by non-renal factors such as age, sex, ethnicity, and muscle mass[6,8]. To account for these variables, clinicians rely on validated equations that convert static creatinine measurements into an estimated glomerular filtration rate (eGFR). It has been shown that while creatinine-based eGFR is highly precise for tracking longitudinal changes within a single patient, its precision can diminish in populations with extreme body compositions or during rapid shifts in physiological states, where the relationship between creatinine production and clearance is no longer in a steady state[9].

How additional illumination could improve the clinical value of this biomarker

While creatinine is the global standard for assessing renal health, its clinical value can be significantly enhanced through the integration of complementary filtration markers and advanced pharmacokinetic modeling. The primary limitation of creatinine stems from its dependence on non-renal factors, such as muscle mass, diet, and tubular secretion, which can lead to what is termed the "creatinine blind area," which is a range where significant loss of kidney function occurs before serum levels rise above the normal reference interval[10]. By pairing measurements of creatinine with Cystatin C (a low-molecular-weight protein produced by all nucleated cells at a constant rate independent of muscle mass) clinicians can achieve a more precise estimation of the

glomerular filtration rate (GFR)[3]. This dual-marker approach reduces the impact of individual physiological variability and improves the detection of early-stage chronic kidney disease, providing a clearer diagnostic picture than either marker used in isolation.

Beyond multi-marker panels, the clinical utility of creatinine can be further illuminated by transitioning from static, single-point measurements to dynamic, longitudinal trend analysis supported by electronic health records (EHR). The application of machine learning algorithms to historical creatinine data could allow for the early identification of "creatinine trajectories," which can predict the risk of acute kidney injury (AKI) or the rate of progression toward end-stage renal disease before clinical symptoms become apparent[11]. Standardizing these measurements through the use of isotope dilution mass spectrometry (ID-MS) traceable assays ensures that data remains consistent across different laboratories and timeframes. If high precision laboratory standards are combined with predictive analytics, creatinine (as a biomarker for kidney disease) can be transformed from a simple snapshot of current kidney function into a powerful tool for proactive, personalized renal care.

Bibliography

1. Perrone RD, Madias NE, Levey AS. Serum creatinine as an index of renal function: new insights into old concepts. *Clin Chem*. 1992;38: 1933–1953.
2. Levey AS, Bosch JP, Lewis JB, Greene T, Rogers N, Roth D. A more accurate method to estimate glomerular filtration rate from serum creatinine: a new prediction equation. Modification of Diet in Renal Disease Study Group. *Ann Intern Med*. 1999;130: 461–470.
3. Inker LA, Schmid CH, Tighiouart H, Eckfeldt JH, Feldman HI, Greene T, et al. Estimating glomerular filtration rate from serum creatinine and cystatin C. *N Engl J Med*. 2012;367: 20–29.
4. Jaffe M. Ueber den Niederschlag, welchen Pikrinsäure in normalem Harn erzeugt und über eine neue Reaction des Kreatinins. *Biol Chem*. 1886;10: 391–400.
5. Rehberg PB. Studies on kidney function: The rate of filtration and reabsorption in the human kidney: The rate of filtration and reabsorption in the human kidney. *Biochem J*. 1926;20: 447–460.
6. Cockcroft DW, Gault MH. Prediction of creatinine clearance from serum creatinine. *Nephron*. 1976;16: 31–41.
7. Levey AS, Stevens LA, Schmid CH, Zhang YL, Castro AF 3rd, Feldman HI, et al. A

new equation to estimate glomerular filtration rate. *Ann Intern Med.* 2009;150: 604–612.

8. Stevens LA, Coresh J, Greene T, Levey AS. Assessing kidney function—measured and estimated glomerular filtration rate. *N Engl J Med.* 2006;354: 2473–2483.
9. Botev R, Mallié J-P, Couchoud C, Schüick O, Fauvel J-P, Wetzels JFM, et al. Estimating glomerular filtration rate: Cockcroft-Gault and Modification of Diet in Renal Disease formulas compared to renal inulin clearance: Cockcroft-gault and modification of diet in renal disease formulas compared to renal inulin clearance. *Clin J Am Soc Nephrol.* 2009;4: 899–906.
10. Shemesh O, Golbetz H, Kriss JP, Myers BD. Limitations of creatinine as a filtration marker in glomerulopathic patients. *Kidney Int.* 1985;28: 830–838.
11. Kashani K, Cheungpasitporn W, Ronco C. Biomarkers of acute kidney injury: the pathway from discovery to clinical adoption. *Clin Chem Lab Med.* 2017;55: 1074–1089.